ELEC2134 Lecture Notes

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Part I
Transform Methods

1 Topic 1: Periodic Signals and Fourier Series

1.1 Waveforms and Periodic Functions

1.1.1 Waveform Fundamentals

Definition 1.1.

- A waveform describes the shape of a signal as a function of time.
- A signal is a function that varies with time.
- A unit step signal stays at 0 until a certain time, then instantly becomes 1.
- A ramp signal increases linearly with time, starting from 0.

The period (T) is the time taken for a waveform to complete one full cycle and start repeating

$$\text{frequency } f = \frac{1}{T}\text{Hertz (Hz)}.$$

Hertz is cycles per second. The units of period is time.

Example 1.2. Some common frequencies.

Frequency (f)	Period ($f = \frac{1}{T}$)
1 kHz	$1 \times 10^{-3}s = 1ms$
1 MHz	$1 \times 10^{-6}s = 1\mu s$
1 GHz	$1 \times 10^{-9}s = 1ns$
1 THz	$1 \times 10^{-12}s = 1ps$

The peak amplitude of a wave is the distance between the x axis and the highest point of the wave. The peak-to-peak amplitude is two times this amplitude.

Periodic Waveforms (or Functions) 1.3.
A periodic waveform or function is any waveform or function that satisfies

$$x(t) = x(t + T),$$

where t is the time variable, and T is the period. In general,

$$x(t) = x(t + nT), \forall n \in \mathbb{Z}.$$

1.1.2 Sinusoid waveforms

A sinusoidal waveform is a type of period waveform, and can be described using the following equation

$$x(t) = A\sin(2\pi ft),$$

where $x(t)$ is the instantaneous amplitude, A is the peak amplitude, and f is the frequency in Hz. It can also be described in terms of period with

$$x(t) = A\sin\left(\frac{2\pi}{T}t\right),$$

where T is the period. This can be simplified in terms of angular frequency $\omega = 2\pi f = \frac{2\pi}{T}$ radians/sec as

$$x(t) = A\sin(\omega t).$$

1.1.3 Other Types of Waveforms

Square Waveform

A square waveform is used mostly in digital electronic circuits for clock and timing control signals. It has very steep vertical transitions and flat top and bottoms.

It has pulse width $\tau = \frac{T}{2}$ and frequency $f = \frac{1}{T}$.

Rectangular Waveform

A rectangular waveform is similar to a square wave, however the duration of the high level (pulse width) is shorter than half the period. This is described by the duty cycle, which is the amount of time a signal is ON compared to the total time of one cycle.

Triangular Waveform

A triangular waveform is a non-sinusoidal waveform that linearly oscillates between a positive and negative peak. They are usually comprised of many sine or cosine waves with different frequencies and amplitudes.

Sawtooth Waveform

A sawtooth waveform is a periodic waveform whose shape resembles the teeth of a sawblade. It is similar to a triangular waveform, however the decay is more similar to a square wave's.

1.1.4 Harmonic Components

A harmonic is a multiple of the fundamental angular frequency of a waveform. The fundamental frequency is the frequency as defined above, giving the harmonics to be

$$\omega_0 = 2\pi f_0 = \frac{2\pi}{T} \quad \Rightarrow \quad w_n = nw_0, f_n = nf_0,$$

where n is a positive integer.

The average value of a waveform is the mean level of the signal over one complete cycle. This is the overall DC component of the waveform. For a periodic waveform $x(t)$ with period T, this is

$$V_{avg} = \frac{1}{T}\int_0^T x(t)dt.$$

1.2 Fourier Series

1.2.1 Frequency Domain Representation

The frequency domain representation of a waveform shows how a time-domain (i.e. amplitude as a function of time) signal is distributed across different frequencies, effective decomposing a signal into it's component frequencies.

Example 1.1. What does the phase-domain of the sinusoid $v(t)$ below look like?

$$v(t) = \frac{4}{\pi}\sin(\omega_0 t) + \frac{4}{3\pi}\sin(3\omega_0 t) + \frac{4}{5\pi}\sin(5\omega_0 t).$$

Answer: This would be a plot with three peaks; one at ω_0, one at $3\omega_0$, and one at $5\omega_0$. The first one has a height of $4/\pi$, the second 43π, and the last $4/5\pi$.

1.2.2 Fourier Series

This process of breaking down a signal is called Fourier decomposition, resulting in a Fourier series. This is a sum of sinusoidal components with different frequencies and amplitudes. The main application of a Fourier series is to determine the harmonic components that are present in a complex periodic waveform.

Any periodic waveform with a period of T seconds can be represented by an infinite series of harmonically related sinusoids. The representation is known as the trigonometric Fourier series.

$$x(t) = A_0 + \sum_{i=1}^{\infty} A_n \cos(n\omega_0 t) + B_n \sin(n\omega_0 t).$$

The fundamental frequency of $x(t)$ is $\omega_0 = 2\pi f_0 = \frac{2\pi}{T}$ radians/sec. The integer multiples of ω_0 are known as harmonic frequencies of $x(t)$. The Fourier coefficients A_0, A_n and B_n are calculated directly from the signal $x(t)$ using the following equations

$$\begin{aligned}
A_0 &= \frac{1}{T}\int_{-T/2}^{T/2} x(t)dt \\
\omega_0 &= 2\pi f_0 = \frac{2\pi}{r} \text{ radians/sec} \\
A_n &= \frac{2}{T}\int_{-T/2}^{T/2} x(t)\cos(n\omega_n t)dt \\
B_n &= \frac{2}{T}\int_{-T/2}^{T/2} x(t)\sin(n\omega_n t)dt.
\end{aligned}$$

Fourier Series of an Even Periodic Function

A function is defined as even if $x(t) = x(-t)$. For these functions/waveforms, the expressions for the Fourier coefficients reduce to

$$A_0 = \frac{2}{T}\int_0^{T/2} x(t)dt, \quad A_n = \frac{4}{T}\int_0^{T/2} x(t)\cos(n\omega_0 t)dt, \quad B_n = 0.$$

The reason that the B coefficients disappear is because the periodic waveform is even, so there are no terms from the odd sine function.

Fourier Series of an Odd Periodic Function

A function is defined as odd if $x(t) = -x(t)$. For these function/waveforms, the expressions reduce to

$$A_0 = A_n = 0 \text{ for } n > 0, \quad B_n = \frac{4}{T}\int_0^{T/2} x(t)\sin(n\omega_0 t)dt$$

1.2.3 Reconstructing a Waveform

To reconstruct (or synthesise) a waveform/function from a set of Fourier coefficients, simply plug them back into the above expression for Fourier series along with their index.

1.3 Alternative Trigonometric Form

In the frequency domain, the amplitude of each frequency component is determined by A_n and B_n, with contributions from both the sine and cosine terms. We would now like to express the signal in an alternative form in which the amplitude of each frequency components is obtained using a single cosine function with a phase angle

$$x(t) = K_0 = \sum_{n=1}^{\infty} K_n \cos(n\omega_0 t + \phi_n).$$

This is the amplitude-phase representation. We are able to find the phase angle ϕ_n with

$$\phi_n = \tan^{-1}\left(-\frac{B_n}{A_n}\right) = -\tan^{-1}\left(\frac{B_n}{A_n}\right).$$

With this phase angle, we are also able to express the Fourier series using a complex number with $K_n \angle \phi_n = A_n - jB_n$.

1.4 Complex Form of the Fourier Series

The cosine-sine and amplitude-phase Fourier series from above are all trigonometric Fourier series. Another alternative Fourier series representations uses exponential functions instead of trigonometric functions. This form is therefore called the complex form of the (or exponential) Fourier series, and is given by

$$x(t) = \sum_{n=-\infty}^{\infty} C_n e^{jn\omega_0 t}, \quad C_n = \frac{1}{T}\int_0^T x(t)e^{-jn\omega_0 t}dt,$$

where $\omega_0 = \frac{2\pi}{T}$. The DC component is then given by C_0, and C_n can be found with

$$C_n = \frac{1}{2}(A_n - jB_n), \quad |C_{-n}| = |C_n| = \frac{1}{2}\sqrt{A_n^2 + A_n^2}.$$

- For even symmetry: $C_n = \frac{2}{T}\int_0^{T/2} x(t)\cos(n\omega_0 t)dt$
- For odd symmetry: $C_n = -\frac{2j}{T}\int_0^{T/2} x(t)\sin(n\omega_0 t)dt$

1.5 Effect of Shifting

Shifting a periodic function along either the vertical or the horizontal axis will generally affect its Fourier coefficients. These are also affected by the presence of certain types of functional symmetries in $f(t)$, particularly even-, odd-, and half-wave symmetry because some coefficient sets vanish altogether.

Shifting a periodic function $f(t)$ along either the vertical or the horizontal axis affects its amplitude-phase Fourier series. It is apparent that shifting $f(t)$ up or down the vertical axis changes only the average value K_0, leaving the amplitude K_n and phase angle ϕ_n of each harmonics component unaffected.

1.6 Half-Wave Symmetry

An important type of symmetry is the half-wave symmetry. A periodic function is half-wave symmetric if

$$x(t) = -x\left(t - \frac{T}{2}\right).$$

Shifting a half-wave symmetric wave or function by half a period then inverting it yields the original function. If a function has half-wave symmetric, then both A_n and B_n are 0 for even values of n.

1.6.1 Odd Half-Wave Symmetry

A periodic signal has odd half-wave symmetry is both of the following are true:

$$x(t) = -x\left(t - \frac{T}{2}\right), \quad \text{and} \quad x(t) = -x(-t).$$

For a function with odd half-wave symmetry, the coefficients are given by

$$A_n = \begin{cases} \frac{4}{T}\int_0^{T/2} x(t)\cos(n\omega_0 t)dt & \text{for n odd} \\ 0 & \text{for n even} \end{cases}$$

$$B_n = \begin{cases} \frac{4}{T}\int_0^{T/2} x(t)\sin(n\omega_0 t)dt & \text{for n odd} \\ 0 & \text{for n even} \end{cases}$$

For odd half-wave symmetry

- All cosine terms are 0 $A_n = 0$.
- All even harmonics are 0.
- Only odd sine harmonics appear in the Fourier series.

1.6.2 Even Half-Wave Symmetry

A periodic signal has even half-wave symmetry is both of the following are true:

$$x(t) = -x\left(t - \frac{T}{2}\right), \quad \text{and} \quad x(t) = x(-t).$$

For a function with even half-wave symmetry, the coefficients are given by

$$A_n = \begin{cases} \frac{4}{T}\int_0^{T/2} x(t)\cos(n\omega_0 t)dt & \text{for n odd} \\ 0 & \text{for n even} \end{cases}$$

$$B_n = \begin{cases} \frac{4}{T}\int_0^{T/2} x(t)\sin(n\omega_0 t)dt & \text{for n odd} \\ 0 & \text{for n even} \end{cases}$$

For even half-wave symmetry

- All sine terms are 0 $B_n = 0$.
- All sine harmonics are 0.
- Only odd cosine harmonics appear in the Fourier series.

1.7 Examples

1.7.1 Waveforms

Example 1.1. Sum these two sine waves

$$f(t) = 10\sin(200t)$$
$$g(t) = 8\sin(200t)$$

Answer: These sine waves have the same period $2\pi f = 200$, $f = \frac{200}{2\pi}Hz = 31.83Hz$.

2 Topic 2: Aperiodic Signals and Fourier Transforms

2.1 Periodic and Aperiodic Signals

A periodic signal repeats itself after some period T, and can be represented by

$$x(t) = x(t + nT), \quad \forall n \in \mathbb{Z}.$$

The frequency components of a periodic signal are analysed using a Fourier series. An aperiodic signal has no repeating pattern, and we assume it's period is infinite. Most practical signals are aperiodic. Since the fundamental frequency is inversely proportionate to the period, so as the period increases indefinitely the individual spectral components merge into a continuous spectrum and the fundamental frequency becomes vanishingly small.

As a consequence,the frequency $n\omega_0$ of each harmonic component becomes the continuous frequency variable ω, the line spacing ω_0 becomes the infinitesimal $d\omega$, and the operation of summation becomes the operation of integration.

Consider the exponential Fourier series. We have

$$x(t) = \sum_{n=-\infty}^{\infty} C_n e^{jn\omega_0 t}, \quad C_n = \frac{1}{T}\int_{-T/2}^{T/2} x(t)e^{-jn\omega_0 t}dt.$$

This then gives the full expression for $x(t)$ to be

$$x(t) = \sum_{n=-\infty}^{\infty} \left\{ \frac{1}{T} \int_{-T/2}^{T/2} x(t) e^{-j\omega_0 t} dt \right\} e^{jn\omega_0 t},$$

and the inverse to be

$$f(t) = \sum_{n=-\infty}^{\infty} \left\{ \frac{1}{2\pi} \int_{-T/2}^{T/2} x(t) e^{-jn\omega_0 t} dt \right\} e^{jn\omega_0 t} \omega_0.$$

We can turn this Fourier series into a Fourier transform by taking the limit of $T \to \infty$, replacing the frequency with the continuous frequency, the line spacing with $d\omega$, and integrating instead of summing. This gives the Fourier transform (FT) of $x(t)$ (denote $X(\omega)$ or $X(j\omega)$) to be

$$X(\omega) = \int_{-\infty}^{\infty} x(t) e^{-j\omega t} dt,$$

and the inverse Fourier transform (IFT) to be

$$x(t) = \frac{1}{2\pi} \int_{-\infty}^{\infty} X(\omega) e^{j\omega t} d\omega.$$

Note that $X(\omega)$ is a complex-valued function, and $x(t)$ is normally a real valued signal.

2.1.1 Fourier Series to Fourier Transform

- For small T, the signal repeats frequently in time and its frequency spectrum consists of discrete spectral lines that are widely spread. As T increases and approaches ∞, the pulses move further apart in time, the fundamental frequency decreases, and the spacing between spectral lines becomes smaller
- As a consequence, more frequency components appear within a given frequency range, and the discrete spectrum begins to resemble a continuous one
- In the limit, the periodic signal becomes an aperiodic single pulse, the spectral lines merge into a continuous spectrum, and the Fourier series representation naturally transitions to the Fourier transform.

2.2 Fourier Transform Properties

Let $f(x)$ and $h(x)$ represent integrable functions satisfying

$$\int_{-\infty}^{\infty} |f(x)|\, dx < \infty.$$

We denote the Fourier transforms of these functions as $F(\xi)$ and $H(\xi)$, respectively.

2.2.1 Basic Properties

The Fourier transform has the following basic properties

- **Linearity:** $af(x) + bh(x) \overset{\mathcal{F}}{\Longleftrightarrow} aF(\xi) + bH(\xi), \quad a, b \in \mathbb{C}$
- **Time shifting:** $f(x - x_0) \overset{\mathcal{F}}{\Longleftrightarrow} e^{-i2\pi x_0 \xi} F(\xi), \quad x_0 \in \mathbb{R}.$
- **Frequency shifting:** $e^{i2\pi \xi_0 x} f(x) \overset{\mathcal{F}}{\Longleftrightarrow} F(\xi - \xi_0), \quad \xi_0 \in \mathbb{R}$
- **Time scaling:** $f(ax) \overset{\mathcal{F}}{\Longleftrightarrow} \frac{1}{|a|} F\left(\frac{\xi}{a}\right), \quad a \neq 0$. Note: the case $a = -1$ leads to the time-reversal property: $f(-x) \overset{\mathcal{F}}{\Longleftrightarrow} F(-\xi)$

2.2.2 Differentiation

Suppose $f(x)$ is differentiable almost everywhere, and both f and its derivative f' are integrable. The Fourier transform is then given by

$$F'(\xi) = \mathcal{F}\left\{\frac{d}{dx}f(x)\right\} = i2\pi\xi F(\xi).$$

We also have differentiation in time to be

$$\frac{d}{dt}f(x) \overset{\mathcal{F}}{\Longleftrightarrow} j\xi F(\xi),$$

which is multiplying the frequency by $j\xi$. Similarly, taking the integrate w.r.t time gives

$$\int_{-\infty}^{t} f(x)dx \overset{\mathcal{F}}{\Longleftrightarrow} \frac{F(\xi)}{j\xi}.$$

And for frequency we have

$$-jtf(x) \overset{\mathcal{F}}{\Longleftrightarrow} \frac{d}{d\xi}F(\xi),$$

which is effectively multiplication in time by jt.

2.2.3 Convolution

Convolution describes how the output of a system depends on the input signal and the system's impulse response. Taking the same functions $f(x)$, $g(x)$ from before (along with their transforms), we get an output signal $y(x)$ given by

$$y(x) = f(x) * g(x) = \int_{-\infty}^{\infty} f(\tau)g(x-\tau)d\tau,$$

where $*$ denotes the convolution operation, then

$$Y(\xi) = F(\xi)G(\xi).$$

Convolution in the time domain corresponds to multiplication in the frequency domain. Note that when the input is an impulse $f(x) = \delta(x)$, then

$$Y(\xi) = G(\xi),$$

since $X(\xi) = 1$.

2.2.4 Modulation

Amplitude modulation is the process of varying the amplitude of a sinusoidal carrier. If the modulating signal is denoted $x(t)$, the modulated carrier becomes

$$y(t) = x(T)\cos(\omega_0 t).$$

The amplitude spectrum of this carrier is one-half the amplitude spectrum of $x(t)$ shifted to be centred at $\pm\omega_0$

$$\mathcal{F}\left\{x(t)\cos(\omega_0 t)\right\} = \frac{1}{2}X(\omega-\omega_0) + \frac{1}{2}X(\omega+\omega_0).$$

3 Topic 3: Laplace Transforms of Signals and Circuits

3.1 Introduction to Laplace Transform

A Laplace transform can be thought of as a generalisation of Fourier transforms that transforms differential equations into algebraic equations. It is also able to handle initial conditions, transients, and steady-states responses.

It is an integral transformation that maps a function $f(t)$ from the time domain to the s-domain. It is defined as

$$\mathcal{L}\{f(t)\} = F(s) = \int_0^\infty f(t)e^{-st}dt,$$

where s is a complex variable and is given by $s = \sigma + j\omega$, σ is the exponential damping factor, and ω is the frequency. Note that the Fourier transform is a special case when $\sigma = 0$,

- $s = j\omega$ - sinusoidal AC signals (Fourier/frequency axis)
- $s = \sigma$ - for exponential signals
- $s = \sigma + j\omega$ - for exponential sinusoidal signals.

3.2 Laplace Transform Properties

Let $f(t)$ and $g(t)$ be two functions with respective Laplace transforms $F(s)$ and $G(s)$

$$f(t) = \mathcal{L}^{-1}\{F(s)\}, \quad g(t) = \mathcal{L}^{-1}\{G(s)\}.$$

3.2.1 Basic Properties

The Laplace transform has the following basic properties (note: the $u(t-a)$ function is present to ensure the function doesn't include negative time):

- **Linearity**: $af(t) + bg(t) \overset{\mathcal{L}}{\Longleftrightarrow} aF(s) + bG(s)$
- **Time scaling**: $f(at) \overset{\mathcal{L}}{\Longleftrightarrow} \frac{1}{a}F\left(\frac{s}{a}\right)$
- **Time shifting**: $f(t-a)u(t-a) \overset{\mathcal{L}}{\Longleftrightarrow} e^{-as}F(s)$
- **Frequency shifting**: $e^{-as}f(t)u(t) \overset{\mathcal{L}}{\Longleftrightarrow} F(s+a)$
- **First time derivative**: $\frac{df(t)}{dt} \overset{\mathcal{L}}{\Longleftrightarrow} sF(s) - f(^-)$
- **Second time derivative**: $\frac{d^2f(t)}{dt^2} \overset{\mathcal{L}}{\Longleftrightarrow} s^2F(s) - sf(0^-) - f'(0^-)$
- **General time derivative**: $\frac{d^n}{dt^n}f(t) \overset{\mathcal{L}}{\Longleftrightarrow} s^nF(s) + \sum_{i=1}^n \left[-s^{n-k}f^{k-1}(0^-)\right]$
- **Time integration**: $\int_0^t f(\tau)d\tau \overset{\mathcal{L}}{\Longleftrightarrow} \frac{1}{s}F(s)$
- **Differentiation in s-domain**: $tf(t) \overset{\mathcal{L}}{\Longleftrightarrow} -\frac{dF(s)}{ds}$
- **Differentiation in s-domain (general)**: $t^nf(t) \overset{\mathcal{L}}{\Longleftrightarrow} (-1)^nF^{(n)}(s)$
- **Frequency Integration**: $\frac{f(t)}{t} \overset{\mathcal{L}}{\Longleftrightarrow} \int_s^\infty F(s)ds$

3.2.2 Initial and Final Value Theorem

The initial and final values of a function can be directly found from its Laplace transform. We have the initial value to be

$$f(0) = \lim_{s\to\infty} sF(s),$$

and final value as

$$f(\infty) = \lim_{s\to 0} sF(s).$$

Note that the final value theorem is only applicable when the system has a definite final value. For rational $F(s)$, the poles of $sF(s)$ must lie in the open left-half place (aside from the simple origin case).

Example 3.1. Find the final value of the function

$$f(t) = e^{-2t}\sin(5t)u(t).$$

Answer: First, we find the Laplace transform of this function to be

$$F(s) = \mathcal{L}\{f(t)\} = \frac{5}{(s+2)^2 + 4s^29}.$$

Taking the limit gives

$$\begin{aligned} f(\infty) &= \lim_{s\to 0} sF(s) \\ &= \lim_{s\to 0} \frac{5s}{s^2+4s+29} \\ &= 0. \end{aligned}$$

3.3 Inverse Laplace Transform

The inverse Laplace transform is very similar to the formula for the inverse Fourier transform. We have

$$f(t) = \mathcal{L}^{-1}\{F(s)\}(t) = \frac{1}{2\pi i}\lim_{T\to\infty}\int_{\gamma-iT}^{\gamma+iT} e^{st}F(s)ds,$$

where $\gamma = \mathfrak{Re}(s)$, such that γ is greater than the real part of all singularities (discontinuities) of F and F is bounded on the line. In the special case where all singularities lie in the open left half-place, or F is an entire function (such as a polynomial, exponential, finite sum, etc), then γ can be set to 0 and the above integral is identical to the inverse Fourier transform.

The typical way to find the inverse Laplace transform is to simply using the properties from above, along with a table of basic/common Laplace transform pairs, to find the inverse. This usually also requires decomposing $F(s)$ into partial fractions

3.3.1 Partial Fraction Decomposition

The partial fraction decomposition of a rational fraction of the form

$$\frac{f(x)}{g(x)},$$

where $f(x)$, $g(x)$ are polynomials and $g(x) \neq 0$, is the expression of the rational fractions as

$$\frac{f(x)}{g(x)} = p(x) + \sum_k \frac{f_j(x)}{g_j(x)},$$

where $p(x)$ is a polynomial, and for each j, the denominator $g_j(x)$ is a power of an irreducible polynomial (i.e. not factorisable into polynomials of positive degrees), and the numerator $f_j(x)$ is a polynomial of a

smaller degree than the degree of the irreducible polynomial. Note that when doing this by hand, we just consider "square-free" polynomials rather than irreducible polynomials.

There are two methods for finding partial fractions:

- **Residue Method**: "Cover" the factor $(x-p)$, then evaluate the rest at $x=p$. See Example 3.6 for an example of this.
- **Algebraic Method**: Equate $f(x)$ to a coefficient corresponding to one of the factors multiplied by the rest of $g(x)$. Then, the coefficients can be found by solving for each of them. See Example 3.6 for an example of this.

3.4 Laplace-Domain Circuit Models

Laplace transform is particularly useful for circuit analysis by converting to the s-domain of circuit elements. Circuit elements can be transformed into impedances, which is similar to phasor impedances from ELEC1111.

3.4.1 Resistor

For resistors, all values remain the same in both the time domain and the s-domain.

$$v(t) = Ri(t) \overset{\mathcal{L}}{\Longleftrightarrow} V(s) = RI(s).$$

3.4.2 Inductors

In the time-domain, we have voltage to be inductances multiplied by the change in current, and the current to be the total change in voltage divided by the inductance,

$$v(t) = L\frac{di(t)}{dt}, \quad i(t) = \frac{1}{L}\int_0^t v(\tau)d\tau + i(0),$$

where $i(0)$ is the current at $t=0$. Taking the Laplace transform of this, we get

$$\begin{aligned} v(t) = L\frac{di(t)}{dt} &\overset{\mathcal{L}}{\Longleftrightarrow} V(s) = sLI(s) - Li(0) \\ i(t) = \frac{1}{L}\int_0^t v(\tau)d\tau + i(0) &\overset{\mathcal{L}}{\Longleftrightarrow} I(s) = \frac{V(s)}{sL} + \frac{i(0)}{s}. \end{aligned}$$

3.4.3 Capacitors

In the time-domain, the voltage is given by the total change in current divided by the capacitance, and the current to be the capacitance multiplied by the change in voltage.

$$v(t) = \frac{1}{C}\int_0^t i(\tau)d\tau + v(0), \quad i(t) = C\frac{dv(t)}{dt}.$$

Taking the Laplace transform of this, we get

$$\begin{aligned} v(t) = \frac{1}{C}\int_0^t i(\tau)d\tau + v(0) &\overset{\mathcal{L}}{\Longleftrightarrow} V(s) = \frac{I(s)}{sC} + \frac{v(0)}{s} \\ i(t) = c\frac{dv(t)}{dt} &\overset{\mathcal{L}}{\Longleftrightarrow} I(s) = sCV(s) - Cv(0). \end{aligned}$$

3.4.4 Initial Conditions

In the above equations, the initial conditions represented a voltage or current source on the circuit, indicating the circuit started with a certain current/voltage. If we assume no initial conditions, we get

Table 1: Zero initial conditions in Laplace-domain circuit models

Voltage/Current Relation	Impedance	Admittance
$V(s) = RI(s)$	$Z(s) = \frac{V(s)}{I(s)} = R$	$Y(s) = \frac{I(s)}{V(s)} = \frac{1}{R}$
$V(s) = sLI(s)$	$Z(s) = \frac{V(s)}{I(s)} = sL$	$Y(s) = \frac{I(s)}{V(s)} = \frac{1}{sL}$
$V(s) = \frac{I(s)}{sC}$	$Z(s) = \frac{V(s)}{I(s)} = \frac{1}{sC}$	$Y(s) = \frac{I(s)}{V(s)} = sC$

3.5 Transfer Functions

A transfer function describes how a signal is changed whilst passing through a system. The transfer function $H(s)$ is defined as the ratio of the output response $Y(s)$ to input excitation $X(s)$, assuming all initial conditions are zero

$$H(s) = \frac{Y(s)}{X(s)}, \quad Y(s) = H(s) \cdot X(s),$$

where $H(s)$ is the transfer function, and $X(s)$ and $Y(s)$ are the input and output, respectively. If both $X(s)$ and $Y(s)$ are voltages, then it represents a voltage gain. If both variables are currents, it represents a current gain. This gives four common types of transfer function

- **Voltage Gain**: $H(s) = \frac{V_o(s)}{V_i(s)}$
- **Current Gain**: $H(s) = \frac{I_o(s)}{I_i(s)}$
- **Impedance**: $H(s) = \frac{V(s)}{I(s)}$
- **Admittance**: $H(s) = \frac{I(s)}{V(s)}$

A single circuit may have several possible transfer function, depending on the chosen input and output variables. Note that gain is dimensionless, whereas impedance and admittance have units.

3.5.1 Unit Impulse Response

To determine the transfer function $H(s)$ of a system, both in the input and output functions must be known. If the input $X(s)$ and the transfer function are known, the output is obtained as

$$Y(s) = H(s) \cdot X(s).$$

Taking the inverse Laplace transform,

$$y(t) = \mathcal{L}^{-1}\{Y(s)\}.$$

If the input is a unit response, $x(t) = \delta(t)$, then

$$X(s) = 1,$$

and therefore $Y(s) = H(s)$, which also means

$$y(t) = h(t),$$

where

$$h(t) = \mathcal{L}^{-1}\{H(s)\}.$$

The function $h(t)$ is called the unit impulse response. It represents the time-domain response of the system to a unit impulse input. Therefore, the transfer function $H(s)$ is the Laplace transform of the unit impulse response of the system.

3.6 Examples

Example 3.1. Find the inverse Laplace transform of

$$F(s) = \frac{s^2 + 12}{s(s+2)(s+3)}$$

using both the Residue method and the algebraic method for partial fraction decomposition.

Answer: First, we need to find the partial fractions

$$\frac{s^2 + 12}{s(s+2)(s+3)} = \frac{A}{s} + \frac{B}{s+2} + \frac{C}{s+3}.$$

Algebraic Method: Multiplying both sides by the denominator, we get

$$s^2 + 12 = A(s^2 + 5s + 6) + B(s^2 + 3s) + C(s^2 + 2s).$$

Equating the coefficients of like powers, we get

$$\begin{aligned}
\text{Constant}: \quad & 12 = 6A && \Rightarrow A = 2 \\
s: \quad & 0 = 5A + 3B + 2C && \Rightarrow 3B + 2C = -10 \\
s^2: \quad & 1 = A + B + C && \Rightarrow B + C = -1 \\
& \therefore A = 2, B = -8, C = 7.
\end{aligned}$$

Residual Method: To find each coefficient, we just multiply the denominator of the respective fraction by $F(s)$. This gives the following set of equations

$$A = sF(s)\Big|_{s=0} \tag{1}$$

$$B = (s+2)F(s)\Big|_{s=-2} \tag{2}$$

$$C = (s+3)F(s)\Big|_{s=-3}. \tag{3}$$

Evaluating these gives

$$\begin{aligned}
(1) \quad A &= \frac{s^2 + 12}{(s+2)(s+3)}\Big|_{s=0} \\
&= \frac{12}{2 \times 3} = 2 \\
(2) \quad B &= \frac{s^2 + 12}{s(s+3)}\Big|_{s=-2} \\
&= \frac{12}{-2 \times 1} = -8 \\
(3) \quad C &= \frac{s^2 + 12}{s(s+2)} \\
&= \frac{12}{-3 \times -1} = 7.
\end{aligned}$$

We can see that these give the same result, however the second method was easier. We now have our function to be in the form

$$F(s) = \frac{2}{s} - \frac{8}{s+2} + \frac{7}{s+3},$$

which we can find the inverse of using linearity and a table of common pairs to get

$$\begin{aligned}
f(t) &= \mathcal{L}^{-1}\left(\frac{2}{s}\right) - \mathcal{L}^{-1}\left(\frac{8}{s+2}\right) + \mathcal{L}^{-1}\left(\frac{7}{s+3}\right) \\
&= 2u(t) - 8e^{-2t} + 7e^{-3t}, \quad t \geq 0
\end{aligned}$$

Example 3.2. Use the Laplace transform to solve the following differential equation

$$\frac{d^2v(t)}{dt^2} + 6\frac{dv(t)}{dt} + 8v(t) = 2u(t),$$

given $v(0) = 1$, $v'(0) = -2$.

Answer:

Taking the Laplace transform of each term gives

$$\left[s^2V(s) - sv(0) - v'(0)\right] + 6\left[sV(s) - v(0)\right] + 8V(s) = \frac{2}{s}.$$

Substituting $v(0) = 1$ and $v'(0) = -2$, we obtain

$$\begin{aligned}(s^2 + 6s + 8)V(s) &= s + 4 + \frac{2}{s} \\ &= \frac{s^2 + 4s + 2}{s} \Rightarrow V(s) \qquad\qquad = \frac{1/4}{s} + \frac{1/2}{s+2} + \frac{1/4}{s+4}.\end{aligned}$$

Taking the inverse Laplace transform, we obtain

$$v(t) = \frac{1}{4}(1 + 2e^{-2t} + e^{-4t})u(t).$$

Example 3.3. Use the Laplace transform to solve the following differential equation

$$\frac{dy}{dt} + 5y(t) + 6\int_0^t y(\tau)d\tau = u(t),$$

given $y(0) = 2$.

Answer:

Taking the Laplace transform of each term in the given differential equation yields

$$[sY(s) - y(0)] + 5Y(s) + \frac{6}{s}Y(s) = \frac{1}{s}.$$

Substituting $y(0) = 2$, we obtain

$$\begin{aligned}Y(s)(s^2 + 5s + 6) &= 1 + 2s \\ Y(s) &= \frac{2s+1}{(s+2)(s+3)} \\ &= -\frac{3}{s+2} + \frac{5}{s+3}.\end{aligned}$$

Taking the inverse Laplace transform, we get

$$y(t) = (-3e^{-2t} + 5e^{-3t})u(t).$$

Part II
System Analysis

4 Topic 4: System Analysis

An analogue system is a device that operates on a continuous time signal $x(t)$, called the input, and produces another continuous time signal $y(t)$, called the output (or response), according to a well-defined rule.

4.1 s-Plane

Usually, it is best to represent the complex frequency $s = \sigma + j\omega$ graphically in the complex plane, called the $s - plane$. The horizontal axis σ represents the real part of s, i.e. the exponential damping factor, and the vertical axis $j\omega$ represents the imaginary part of s, i.e. the sinusoidal frequency ω.

The Fourier transform can be obtained from the Laplace transform by setting $\sigma = 0$. Thus, if the region of convergence for the Laplace transform includes the imaginary axis, then,

$$\text{FT} : H(j\omega) = H(s)|_{s=j\omega}.$$

In this plane, $\sigma = 0$ corresponds to the imaginary axis. Therefore, the Fourier transform is obtained by evaluating the Laplace transform along the imaginary axis.

4.2 Poles and Zeros

Poles: When the denominator $X(s)$ of a rational transfer function $H(s) = \frac{Y(s)}{X(s)}$ of a system is set equal to zero, it is known as the characteristic equation. The roots of this equation determine the character of the time response of the system. These roots are called the poles of the system, and they are where the transfer function becomes infinite.
Zeros: Similarly, the roots of the numerator polynomial $Y(s)$ of a transfer function are called the zeros of the system, and correspond to where the transfer function is zero.

We denote the location of zeros in the s-plane with the symbol 0, and the location of poles with the symbol $\times$.

4.3 System Stability

4.3.1 Real Pole(s)

If all of a systems pole lie in the left-half of the $s - plane$, then that system is said to be stable. They correspond to exponentially decaying impulse responses. For a causal continuous-time linear-time-invariant (LTI) system, Bounded-Input Bounded-Output (BIBO) stability requires all poles of $H(s)$ to lie strictly in the open left-half plane, i.e. $\mathfrak{Re}(p) < 0$.

> **Note 4.1.** A system is causal if its output at time t only depends on present and past inputs, not future inputs. For an LTI system, this means its impulse satisfies
>
> $$H(t) = 0, \quad \forall t < 0.$$
>
> This means that if a unit impulse response contains $u(t)$, it is inherently causal.

If the poles instead lie in the right half-plane, then they correspond to systems with exponentially growing impulse responses, and are called unstable as they do not converge.

4.3.2 Complex Conjugate Poles

Consider a transfer function with a pair of complex conjugate poles at

$$H(s) = \frac{1}{(s-p_1)(s-p_3)}$$
$$= \frac{1}{(s-(\sigma_a+j\omega_a))(s-(\sigma_a-j\omega_a))} \qquad = \frac{A}{s-\sigma_a-j\omega_a} + \frac{B}{s-\sigma_a+j\omega_a}.$$

By evaluating the constants A and B, we obtain

$$\begin{aligned} H(s) &= \frac{\frac{1}{2j\omega_a}}{s-\sigma_a-j\omega_a} + \frac{-\frac{1}{2j\omega_a}}{s-\sigma_a+j\omega_a} \\ \Rightarrow h(t) &= \mathcal{L}^{-1}\{H(s)\} \\ &= \frac{1}{2j\omega_a}\left[e^{(\sigma_a+j\omega_a)t} - e^{(\sigma_a-j\omega_a)t}\right] \\ &= \frac{1}{\omega_a}\cdot e^{\sigma_a t}\left[\frac{e^{j\omega_a t} - e^{-j\omega_a t}}{2j}\right] \\ &= \frac{1}{\omega_a} e^{\sigma_a t}\sin(\omega_a t). \end{aligned}$$

This is a impulse response $h(t)$ of a second-order system with complex conjugate poles. The real part σ_a determines the decay rate, while the imaginary part ω_a determines the oscillation frequency. Thus, the impulse response depends strongly on the pole locations.

If the real part of a pole is kept constant and the imaginary part increases from ω_a to ω_p, the envelope of the impulse response $h(t)$ remains the same, while the oscillation frequency increases.

If the imaginary part is held constant and the real part becomes more negative (move further into the left-half plane), the oscillation frequency remains unchanged while the decay rate increases. Notice also that if the pole lies on the real axis (i.e. $\omega_a = 0$), then there is no oscillation in the impulse response. If the poles lies on the imaginary axis ($\sigma = 0$), there is no growth or decay in the impulse response, it is a pure oscillation. If a system has a pole with a positive real part ($\sigma > 0$), its impulse response grows exponentially. Such a system is unstable.

A stable and causal system is a system that has all its poles in the left half-plane. A persistent undamped oscillation is not BIBO stable.

4.4 Analysis of a System Without Zeros

4.4.1 First-Order System

A first-order system without zeros can be described by the transfer function

$$H(s) = \frac{a}{s+a},$$

with the pole at $-a$. If the input is a unit step function, where $X(s) = \frac{1}{s}$, the Laplace transform of the step response is

$$Y(s) = X(s)\cdot H(s) = \frac{1}{s}\frac{a}{s+a} = \frac{1}{s} - \frac{1}{s+a}.$$

Taking the inverse transform of $Y(s)$, the step response is given by

$$y(t) = 1 - e^{-at}.$$

We can define a time constant T to be

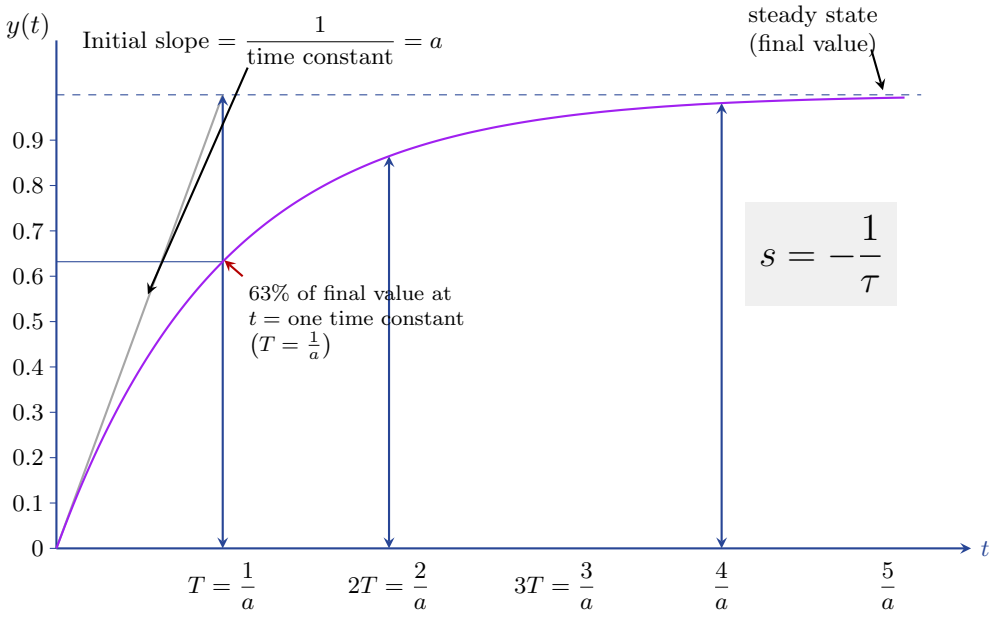
$$T = \frac{1}{a},$$

which we can plug into this step response

$$y(t)\Big|_{t=\frac{1}{a}} = 1 - e^{-a\left(\frac{1}{a}\right)} = 0.63,$$

which means T define the amount of time it takes for the step response to rise to 63% of its final value, and has the unit seconds. The reciprocal of the time constant has the units $\frac{1}{\text{sec}}$, or frequency. We can then call a the cutoff frequency.

The time constant is related to the transient response, which is the speed at which the system responds to a step input. Since the pole of the transfer function is at $s = -a$, we can say the pole is located at the negative of the reciprocal of the time constant, and the further the pole from the imaginary axis the faster the transient response.



4.4.2 Second-Order System

In comparison to a first-order system, a second-order system exhibits a wide range of responses. The general case for a second-order transfer function is

$$H(s) = \frac{Y(s)}{X(s)} = \frac{a}{s^2 + bs + a}.$$

By assigning appropriate values to a and b, we can see the different transient responses. The term a is simply a multiplier that can take any value. If the input $X(s)$ is a unit step input $X(s) = \frac{1}{s}$, then the output $Y(s) = X(S) \cdot H(s) = \frac{1}{s}\frac{a}{s^2+bs+a}$,

$$\therefore y(t) = \mathcal{L}^{-1}\left[\frac{1}{s}\frac{a}{s^2 + bs + a}\right].$$

We can rewrite the transfer function as

$$H(s) = \frac{\omega_n^2}{s^2 + 2\zeta\omega_n s + \omega_n^2},$$

which we can use to describe different types of systems

Case	Damping	s-plane	Unit step response
$a = b$, $\zeta > 1$	Overdamped	Two real poles	
$a > b$, $0 < \zeta < 1$	Underdamped	Two complex poles	
$b = 0$, $\zeta = 0$	Undamped	Two imaginary poles	
$b = \frac{1}{2}\sqrt{a}$, $\zeta = 1$	Critically damped	Two repeated real poles	

4.5 Cascade and Parallel Structures

A linear system can be characterised by its transfer function $H(s)$, where its input $X(s)$ and output $Y(s)$. When the transfer function of the overall system $H(s)$ is the product of two transfer functions, then it is called cascade form (can be thought of as in series)

$$H(s) = H_1(s) \cdot H_2(s).$$

When two transfer functions $H_3(s)$ and $H_4(s)$ appear in parallel, then the overall transfer function is given by

$$H(s) = H_3(s) + H_4(s).$$

4.6 Frequency Response

The steady-state response $\sigma = 0$ of a linear system to a sinusoidal input is obtained from the expression for $H(s)$ by replacing s with $j\omega$. The function $H(j\omega) = H(\omega)$ is called the frequency response function. The modulus of $H(j\omega)$ gives the magnitude of the sinusoidal response $|H(j\omega)| = |H(\omega)$. The angle of $H(j\omega)$ gives the phase of the response $\theta(\omega)$, relative to the input sinusoid.

4.6.1 Decibels

The decibel is a logarithmic measurement unit for sound levels, but also is important in electronics and signal processing. It represents ratios such as power, sound pressure, voltage, intensity, etc. using a logarithmic scale

$$\text{decibels } dB = 20 \log_{10} \frac{v_{out}}{v_{in}} = 10 \log_{10} \left(\frac{v_{out}}{v_{in}} \right)^2 = 10 \log_{10} \frac{P_{out}}{P_{in}}.$$

A difference of 3 dB in a reading represents a doubling in power, and -3 dB represents half power. Each successive multiple of ten increases the order of magnitude by 10.

4.7 Low-Pass Filter

For a low-pass filter or system, we have

$$H(s) = \frac{a}{s + a},$$

with the magnitude

$$|H(j\omega)| = \frac{a}{\sqrt{a^2 + \omega^2}}.$$

The cutoff occurs when

$$|H(j\omega)| = \frac{1}{\sqrt{2}},$$

which gives

$$\omega = a = \omega_c,$$

where ω_c is called the cutoff frequency. The total bandwidth of the system is then

$$\text{BW} = a.$$

A first-order low-pass filter has the form

$$H(s) = \frac{\omega_c}{s + \omega_c}, \quad H(j\omega) = \frac{\omega_c}{j\omega + \omega_c}$$

The cutoff frequency can also be defined by when the magnitude drops off by 3 dB. For a second-order low-pass filter, this is just two low-pass filters cascaded together. Both first- and second-order low-pass filters have the same cutoff frequency, and each pole contributes approximately -20 dB/decade to the high-frequency asymptotic slope. A first-order filter rolls off at 20 dB/decade beyond the cutoff frequency, and a second-order filter rolls at at 40 dB/decade asymptotically for low-pass systems with two more poles than zeros, meaning it attenuates unwanted frequencies sharper than a first-order system.

4.8 Second-Order Low Pass Filter

A second-order low pass filter has the form

$$H(s) = \frac{\omega_0^2}{s^2 + b_0 s + \omega_0^2},$$

with bandwidth and cutoff frequency being given by

$$b_0 = \frac{\omega_0}{Q}, \quad \omega_0,$$

where Q is the quality factor. In the case were the real poles are distinct, the cut-off frequency ω_1 is determined by the dominate pole α_1.

When the poles are complex conjugates, it becomes a resonant low-pass filter. It has the same form as the above second-order low-pass filters.

4.9 Band-Pass Filter

A band-pass filter has two cutoff frequencies ω_u and ω_l which identify the pass-band (i.e. the region in which frequencies are minimally attenuated). The cutoff frequencies are defined as the frequencies for which the magnitude of the transfer function is $\frac{1}{\sqrt{2}}$ times the original magnitude. There are three important parameters in a band-pass filter.

The first important parameter in a band-pass filter is the centre frequency ω_o, which is defined as the frequency for which a circuit's transfer function is purely real. This is also known as the resonant frequency, and can be found as

$$\omega_o = \sqrt{\omega_u \omega_l}.$$

For band-pass filters, the magnitude of the transfer function is maximum at the centre frequency.

The second parameter is the bandwidth (BW), which is the width of the pass-band

$$BW = \omega_u - \omega_l.$$

The final parameter is the quality factor Q, which is the ratio of the centre frequency to the bandwidth

$$Q = \frac{\omega_o}{BW}.$$

This is a measure of the width of the pass-band, independent of its location on the frequency axis. It also describes the shape of the magnitude plot, independent of frequency.

4.9.1 Second-Order Band-Pass Filter

A second-order band-pass filter has the form

$$H(s) = \frac{b_0 s}{s^2 + b_0 s + \omega_0^2},$$

with b_0 is again the bandwidth $b_0 = \frac{\omega_2}{Q}$, and Q is the quality factor. Note the s in the numerator, this is not present in the resonant low-pass filters.

4.10 Notch and Band-Stop Filters

A notch filter suppresses a specific frequency (known as the notch frequency), ideally reducing its magnitude to zero. It has the form

$$H(s) = \frac{s^2 + \omega_z^2}{\omega_z^2},$$

where ω_z is the notch frequency. When complex poles are introduced to a notch filter, it becomes a band-stop filter

$$H(s) = \frac{s^2 + \omega_z^2}{s^2 + b_p s + \omega_p^2}$$

with b_p the bandwidth of the resonant pole, ω_p the resonant frequency of the pole, Q_p the quality factor of the pole, and ω_z the notch frequency. When the pole frequency $\omega_p = \omega_z$, we get a standard notch filter, depending on $b_p = \frac{\omega_p}{Q_p}$, the notch will be narrower or wider.

4.11 High-Pass Filter

A high-pass filter passes high frequency signals and attenuates low frequency signals

$$H(s) = \frac{s}{s + \omega_c}, \quad H(j\omega) = \frac{j\omega}{j\omega + \omega_c}.$$

This also blocks DC components, because $|H(j0)| = 0$. A second-order high-pass filter with real poles has the form

$$H(s) = \frac{s^2}{s^2 + b_1 s + \omega_1^2},$$

and similarly with complex poles it has the form

$$H(s) = \frac{s^2}{s^2 + b_2 s + \omega_2^2}.$$

5 Part 5: Bode Plot

5.1 Decibels

The ratio of any two values of the same quantity can be expressed in decibels. It is often useful to express the magnitudes of transfer functions in decibels. To convert a transfer function magnitude to decibels, we multiply the common logarithm (base 10) of the transfer function magnitude by 20.

$$|H(j\omega)|_{dB} = 20 \log_{10} \left| \frac{V_{out}(j\omega)}{V_{in}(j\omega)} \right|.$$

Similarly, the ratios of powers are converted to decibels by taking 10 times the logarithm of the ratio

$$dB = 10 \log_{10} \left| \frac{P_{out}}{P_{in}} \right|.$$

Note that the decibels equivalents are positive for magnitudes greater than unity, whereas the decibel equivalents are negative for magnitudes less than unity. An advantage of decibels is when plotting is that very small and very large magnitudes can be displayed clearly on a single plot. For cascaded systems, the product of the transfer functions becomes sums in decibels.

A decade is a range of frequencies for which the ratio of the highest frequency to the lowest is 10 (i.e. 2-20Hz is one decade, 50-5000Hz is two decades). An octave is a two-to-one change in frequency (i.e. 10-20Hz is one octave, 2-16Hz is three octaves). The number of decades between two frequencies is given by

$$\log_{10} \frac{f_2}{f_1}.$$

Similarly, the number of octaves between two frequencies is

$$\log_2 \frac{f_2}{f_1} = \frac{\log_{10} \frac{f_2}{f_1}}{\log_{10} 2}.$$

5.2 Bode Plot

A bode plot is abscissa (logarithmic frequency) vs magnitude (in dB) or degrees.

Part III
Appendix

A Filters

A.1 Types of Filters

The following are idealised specifications for the most common filter functions

Ideal Low-Pass Filter

Passes low frequencies, blocks high frequencies.

$$|H(j\omega)| = \begin{cases} 1, & 0 \leq \omega \leq \omega_c \\ 0, & \omega > \omega_c \end{cases}$$

Passband: $0 \leq \omega < \omega_c$, stopband: $\omega_c < \omega \leq \infty$.

Ideal High-Pass Filter

Passes high frequencies, blocks low frequencies.

$$|H(j\omega)| = \begin{cases} 0, & 0 \leq \omega < \omega_c \\ 1, & \omega > \omega_c \end{cases}$$

Passband: $\omega_c < \omega \leq \infty$, stopband: $0 \leq \omega < \omega_c$.

Ideal Band-Pass Filter

Passes only frequencies between ω_L and ω_H.

$$|H(j\omega)| = \begin{cases} 1, & \omega_L \leq \omega \leq \omega_H \\ 0, & \text{otherwise} \end{cases}$$

Passband: $\omega_L \leq \omega \leq \omega_H$, stopbands: $\omega < \omega_L$ and $\omega > \omega_H$.

Ideal Band-Stop (Band-Reject) Filter

Rejects frequencies between ω_L and ω_H.

$$|H(j\omega)| = \begin{cases} 0, & \omega_L \leq \omega_H \\ 1, & \text{otherwise} \end{cases}$$

Passbands: $\omega < \omega_L$ and $\omega > \omega_H$, stopband: $\omega_L < \omega < \omega_H$.

B Useful Integrals

B.1 Integrals

For integer $n \neq 0$

$$\int \sin(ax)dx = -\frac{1}{a}\cos(ax)$$

$$\int \cos(ax)dx = \frac{1}{a}\sin(ax)$$

$$\int_0^T \sin(n\omega_0 t)dt = 0$$

$$\int_0^T \cos(n\omega_0 t)dt = 0$$

B.2 Integration by Parts

B.2.1 Key Formula

Key formula:

$$\int udv = uv - \int vdu.$$

$$\int xe^{ax}dx = \frac{e^{ax}}{a^2}(ax-1)$$
$$\int x^2e^{ax}dx = \frac{e^{ax}}{a^3}(a^2x^2-2ax+2)$$

B.2.2 Cosine

Key formula:

$$\int t\cos(n\omega_0 t)dt.$$

Let $u = t \Rightarrow dt$, $dv = \cos(n\omega_0 t)dt \Rightarrow v = \frac{1}{n\omega_0}\sin(n\omega_0 t)$

$$\boxed{\int t\cos(n\omega_0 t)dt = \frac{1}{n\omega_0}\sin(n\omega_0 t) - \frac{1}{(n\omega_0)^2}\cos(n\omega_0 t) + G}$$

B.2.3 Sine

Key formula:

$$\int t\sin(n\omega_0 t)dt.$$

Let $u = t \Rightarrow du = dt$, $dv = \sin(n\omega_0 t)dt \Rightarrow v = -\frac{1}{n\omega_0}\cos(n\omega_0 t)$

$$\boxed{\int t\sin(n\omega_0 t)dt = -\frac{t}{n\omega_0}\cos(n\omega_0 t) + \frac{1}{(n\omega_0)^2}\sin(n\omega_0 t) + G}$$

B.2.4 Definite Integration by Parts

For $0 \le t \le T$ and integer n

$$\int_0^T t\sin(n\omega_0 t)dt = \boxed{\frac{T}{n\omega_0}} \quad \text{and} \quad \int_0^T t\cos(n\omega_0 t)dt = \boxed{0}.$$

B.3 Definite Integrals

x^2 and trigonometric function:

$$\int_0^T x^2\cos(nx)dx = \left[\frac{x^2}{n}\sin(nx) + \frac{2x}{n^2}\cos(nx) - \frac{2}{n^3}\sin(nx)\right]_0^T$$
$$\int_0^T x^2\sin(nx)dx = \left[-\frac{x^2}{n}\cos(nx) + \frac{2x}{n^2}\sin(nx) + \frac{2}{n^3}\cos(nx)\right]_0^T.$$

x and trigonometric function:

$$\int_0^T x\cos(nx)dx = \left[\frac{x}{n}\sin(nx) + \frac{1}{n^2}\cos(nx)\right]_0^T$$
$$\int_0^T x\sin(nx)dx = \left[-\frac{x}{n}\cos(nx) + \frac{1}{n^2}\sin(nx)\right]_0^T.$$

Miscellaneous:

$$\int_0^T \cos(m\omega_0 t)\sin(n\omega_0 t)dt = 0 \quad \text{for all m and n}$$

$$\int_0^T \sin(m\omega_0 t)\sin(n\omega_0 t)dt = \begin{cases} 0 & \text{for all } m \neq n \\ \frac{T}{2} & \text{for } m = n \end{cases}$$

$$\int_0^T \cos(m\omega_0 t)\cos(n\omega_0 t)dt = \begin{cases} 0 & \text{for all } m \neq n \\ \frac{T}{2} & \text{for } m = n \end{cases}.$$

C Trigonometric Identities

$$\begin{aligned}
\sin(\alpha \pm \beta) &= \sin\alpha\cos\beta \pm \cos\alpha\sin\beta \\
\cos(\alpha \pm \beta) &= \cos\alpha\cos\beta \mp \sin\alpha\sin\beta \\
\cos(\alpha \pm 90^\circ) &= \mp\sin\alpha \\
\sin(\alpha \pm 90^\circ) &= \pm\cos\alpha \\
\cos\alpha\cos\beta &= \frac{1}{2}\cos(\alpha+\beta) + \frac{1}{2}\cos(\alpha-\beta) \\
\sin\alpha\sin\beta &= \frac{1}{2}\cos(\alpha-\beta) - \frac{1}{2}\cos(\alpha+\beta) \\
\sin\alpha\cos\beta &= \frac{1}{2}\sin(\alpha+\beta) + \frac{1}{2}\sin(\alpha-\beta) \\
\sin 2\alpha &= 2\sin\alpha\cos\alpha.
\end{aligned}$$

$$\begin{aligned}
\cos 2\alpha &= 2\cos^2\alpha - 1 \\
&= 1 - 2\sin^2\alpha \\
&= \cos^2\alpha - \sin^2\alpha \\
\sin^2\alpha &= \frac{1}{2}(1 - \cos 2\alpha) \\
\cos^2\alpha &= \frac{1}{2}(1 + \cos 2\alpha) \\
\sin\alpha &= \frac{e^{j\alpha} - e^{-j\alpha}}{2j} \\
\cos\alpha &= \frac{e^{j\alpha} + e^{-j\alpha}}{2} \\
e^{\pm j\alpha} &= \cos\alpha \pm j\sin\alpha \\
A\cos\alpha + B\sin\alpha &= \sqrt{A^2+B^2}\cos\left(\alpha + \tan^{-1}\left(\frac{B}{A}\right)\right).
\end{aligned}$$

D Common Fourier Transform Pairs and Properties

Table 2: Common Signals and Their Fourier Transforms

Type	$f(t)$	$F(\omega)$
Impulse	$\delta(t)$	1
Constant	A	$2\pi A\delta(\omega)$
Signum	$\operatorname{sgn}(t)$	$\frac{2}{j\omega}$
Step (Heaviside)	$u(t)$	$\pi\delta(\omega)+\frac{1}{j\omega}$
Positive-time exponential	$e^{-at}u(t),\ a>0$	$\frac{1}{a+j\omega},\ a>0$
Negative-time exponential	$e^{at}u(-t),\ a>0$	$\frac{1}{a-j\omega},\ a>0$
Positive & negative exponential	e^{-a}	t
Complex exponential	$e^{j\omega_0 t}$	$2\pi\delta(\omega-\omega_0)$
Cosine	$\cos\omega_0 t$	$\pi\left[\delta(\omega-\omega_0)+\delta(\omega+\omega_0)\right]$
Sine	$\sin\omega_0 t$	$j\pi\left[\delta(\omega+\omega_0)-\delta(\omega-\omega_0)\right]$

Table 3: Fourier Transform Properties

Name of Property	Function of Time	Fourier Transform
Definition	$f(t)$	$\mathcal{F}(\omega)$
Multiplication by constant	$Af(t)$	$A\mathcal{F}(\omega)$
Linearity	$af_1(t)+bf_2(t)$	$a\mathcal{F}_1(\omega)+b\mathcal{F}_2(\omega)$
Time shift	$f(t-t_0)$	$e^{-j\omega t_0}\mathcal{F}(\omega)$
Time scaling ($a>0$)	$f(at)$	$\frac{1}{a}\mathcal{F}\left(\frac{\omega}{a}\right)$
Modulation (frequency shift)	$e^{j\omega_0 t}f(t)$	$\mathcal{F}(\omega-\omega_0)$
Differentiation (time)	$\frac{d^n f(t)}{ddt^n}$	$(j\omega)^n\mathcal{F}(\omega)$
Convolution (time)	$\int_{-\infty}^{\infty} f_1(t)f_2(t-x)dx$	$\mathcal{F}_1(\omega)\mathcal{F}_2(\omega)$
Time multiplication	$t^n f(t)$	$(j)^n\frac{d^n\mathcal{F}(\omega)}{d\omega^n}$
Time reversal	$f(-t)$	$\mathcal{F}(-\omega)$
Integration	$\int_{-\infty}^{t} f(\tau)d\tau$	$\frac{\mathcal{F}(\omega)}{j\omega}+\pi\mathcal{F}(0)\delta(\omega)$

E Common Laplace Transform Pairs and Properties

Table 4: Basic Laplace Transforms

Type	Time-Domain	s-domain	Region of Convergence
Unit impulse	$\delta(t)$	1	all s
Delayed impulse	$\delta(t-\tau)$	$e^{-\tau s}$	all s
Unit step (Heaviside)	$u(t)$	$\frac{1}{s}$	$\mathfrak{Re}(s) > 0$
Delayed unit step	$u(t-\tau)$	$\frac{1}{s}e^{-\tau s}$	$\mathfrak{Re}(s) > 0$
Delayed function and step	$f(t-\tau)u(t-\tau)$	$e^{s-\tau}\mathcal{L}\{f(t)\}$	
Rectangular impulse	$u(t)-u(t-\tau)$	$\frac{1}{s}\left(1-e^{-\tau s}\right)$	$\mathfrak{Re}(s) > 0$
Ramp	$tu(t)$	$\frac{1}{s^2}$	$\mathfrak{Re}(s) > 0$
nth power ($n \in \mathbb{R}$)	$t^n u(t)$	$\frac{n!}{s^{n+1}}$	$\mathfrak{Re}(s) > 0, n > -1$
nth polynomial	$\frac{t^{n-1}}{(n-1)!}u(t)$	$\frac{1}{s^n}$	$\mathfrak{Re}(s) > 0, n > 1$
Exponential decay	$e^{-\alpha t}u(t)$	$\frac{1}{s+\alpha}$	$\mathfrak{Re}(s) > -\alpha$
nth power using frequency shift	$t^n e^{-\alpha t}$	$\frac{n!}{(s+\alpha)^{n+1}}$	
Sine	$\sin(\omega t)u(t)$	$\frac{\omega}{s^2+\omega^2}$	$\mathfrak{Re}(s) > 0$
Cosine	$\cos(\omega t)u(t)$	$\frac{s}{s^2+\omega^2}$	$\mathfrak{Re}(s) > 0$
Exponentially decaying sine wave	$e^{-\alpha t}\sin(\omega t)u(t)$	$\frac{\omega}{(s+\alpha)^2+\omega^2}$	$\mathfrak{Re}(s) > -\alpha$
Exponentially decaying cosine wave	$e^{-\alpha t}\cos(\omega t)u(t)$	$\frac{s+\alpha}{(s+\alpha)^2+\omega^2}$	$\mathfrak{Re}(s) > -\alpha$